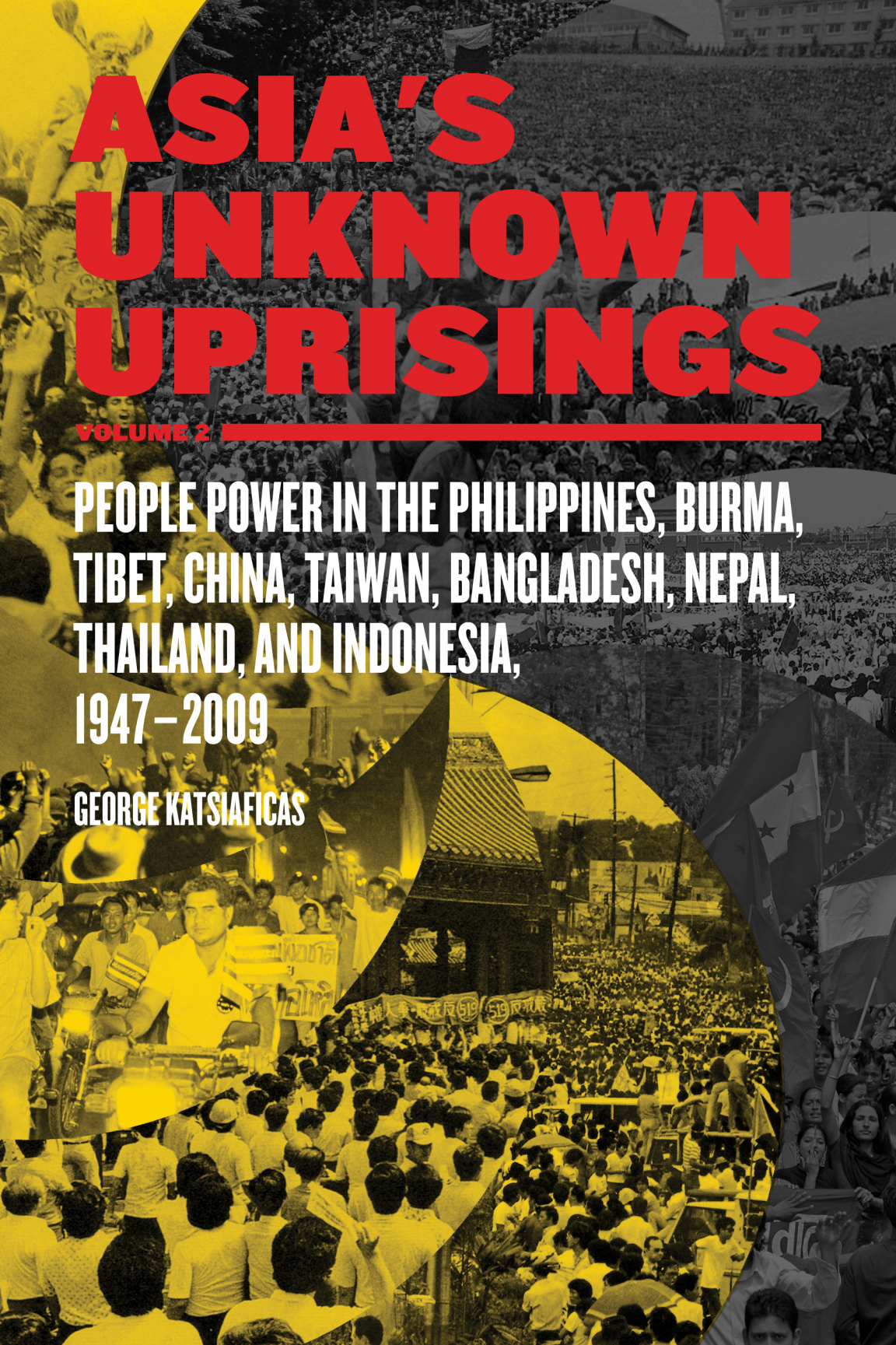


ASIA'S UNKNOWN UPRISINGS

VOLUME 2

PEOPLE POWER IN THE PHILIPPINES, BURMA, TIBET, CHINA, TAIWAN, BANGLADESH, NEPAL, THAILAND, AND INDONESIA, 1947–2009

GEORGE KATSIAFICAS

CHAPTER 1

A World of Uprisings

> **The likelihood of democratic development in Eastern Europe is virtually nil. . . . With a few exceptions, the limits of democratic development in the world may well have been reached.**
>
> —Samuel Huntington, 1984

> **We, the old ones, may never see the decisive battles of the coming revolution.**
>
> —V.I. Lenin, January 1917

UPRISINGS ARE TERRIBLE, beautiful events. They break out so unexpectedly that they surprise their partisans as much as they bewilder their opponents. Far more than we realize, the world we live in has been created by revolutionary insurgencies. From the American Revolution to the Russian, from the Gwangju Uprising to the Arab Spring, uprisings occur with astonishing regularity.

Leading up to the 1980s, East Asian dictatorships had been in power for decades and seemed unshakable, yet a wave of revolts soon transformed the region. These insurgencies threw to the wind the common bias that Asians are happier with authoritarian governments than democracy. They ushered in greater liberties and new opportunities for citizen participation—as well as for international capital. One of the purposes of this book is to assess the contradictory character of these changes and the forces that produced them.

Asia's Unknown Uprisings focuses on people's forms of interaction with each other during moments of confrontations with the forces of order. I seek to let the actions of hundreds of thousands of people speak for themselves as a means to portray freedom's concrete history. The oft-repeated phrase "the people make history" cannot be comprehended without a central focus on popular uprisings. In the first volume, I provided a view of Korean history through the prism

of social movements. In a country whose unique character meant three consecutive dynasties each lasted nearly half a millennium, Korea's long twentieth century produced an unmatched richness of uprisings and upheavals. From the 1894 Farmers' Movement against Japanese colonialism to the 2008 candlelight protests against U.S. "mad cow" beef, insurgencies continually built upon each other. Popular movements assimilated lessons from previous protest episodes, and people improvised tactics and targets from their own assessments of past accomplishments and failures.

This volume is international in scope and deals with uprisings in nine places, yet connections can be found in popular insurgencies' capacities to learn from each other, to expand upon preceding examples, and to borrow each other's vocabulary, actions, and aspirations. Almost overnight, "People Power" simultaneously became activists' common global identity—cutting across religious, national, and economic divides. Through empirical analysis of specific uprisings, this book's focus is the unfolding development of Asian uprisings in the Philippines (1986), Burma (1988), Tibet (1989), China (1989), Taiwan (1990), Nepal (1990), Bangladesh (1990), Thailand (1992), and Indonesia (1998).

The 1989 revolutions in Eastern Europe against Soviet regimes are well known, yet Eurocentric (and anticommunist) bias often diminishes the significance of their Asian counterparts, rendering them largely invisible. Although the accomplishments of Asian uprisings are noteworthy and their character significantly more grassroots than contemporaneous turmoil in Eastern Europe (where Gorbachev's willingness to abandon the Russian empire triggered the movements), they remain unknown, even within the region where they transpired. East Asia's string of uprisings from 1980 to 1998 had a huge political impact, overthrowing eight entrenched regimes: Philippine dictator Ferdinand Marcos was forced into exile; South Korea's Chun Doo-hwan was disgraced and compelled to grant direct presidential elections before being imprisoned; Taiwan's forty-year martial law regime was overturned; Burma's mobilized citizenry overthrew two dictators only to see their successors massacre thousands; Nepal's monarchy was made constitutional; military ruler Muhammad Ershad in Bangladesh was forced to step down and eventually sent to prison; Army Chief Suchinda Kraprayoon in Thailand was forced to vacate the office of prime minister; and Indonesia's longtime dictator Suharto was ousted after three decades in power.

Despite more than a century of research, modern social science is utterly incapable of predicting political upheavals. Democratization theorists have identified

TABLE 1.1 **Dictators Deposed by People Power Uprisings**

Dictator	Country	Year of Ouster
Ferdinand Marcos	Philippines	1986
Chun Doo-hwan	South Korea	1987
Ne Win, Sein Lwin	Burma	1988
Ershad	Bangladesh	1990
Suchinda	Thailand	1992
Suharto	Indonesia	1998

an array of major variables posited to be significant indicators of the possibility for lasting democracy. Half a century ago, Seymour Martin Lipset hypothesized a correlation between economic development and democracy, asserting that once societies reach a wealth threshold, their chances of being democratic are significantly higher than those of poorer societies. Various theorists have subsequently operationalized Lipset's "modernization theory" with specific quantitative predictions correlating wealth and survival rate of democratic systems of governance.[1] Samuel Huntington's observation that urbanization is a prerequisite for democratization led him to recommend "forced-draft urbanization," a notorious policy that resulted in free-fire zones and rural saturation bombing of Vietnam as a means of forcing peasants into cities. The United States dropped more bombs on Vietnam to "create the preconditions for democracy" than had been used everywhere during World War II, yet Vietnamese nationalism prevailed. Max Weber's notion of a correlation between capitalism and the Protestant ethic was adapted to Asia through analysis asserting an inverse relationship between Confucian values and democratization. Although East Asia's economic rise has given such theorists pause, communal Confucian values remain seen as the "kernel of traditional culture that is unfavorable to democracy."[2] For Huntington, Confucian democracy was an oxymoron, a "contradiction in terms."[3] Following his lead, Euro-American theorists have understood a dearth of American-style "civil society" as a reason for an absence of democracy.

To the above list of explanatory variables for democratic governance should be added the precise character of uprisings. Protesters' mutual relationships (their capacity to bond and organize themselves in moments of extreme crisis, their hierarchical or horizontal patterns of authority, and their behavior toward those within their own ranks who violate group norms and values) are significant predictors of future political relationships. Similarly, insurgents' interaction with opposing forces (their treatment of prisoners, tactics of mobilization and confrontation, and forms of justice meted out to traitors and enemy combatants) give insight into the quality of democratic norms that likely would become operative if the movement were successful. Comparing the intensity of peaks of protest may also be a means of gauging democratization's subsequent depth. Noting with care specific social strata that mobilize during crises may be a better means of comprehending political opinions than one hundred telephone opinion polls conducted in quieter moments. Individuals who seem to be agreeing with the course of politics-as-usual often have other streams of thought in the back of their minds. The tremendous power of the mass media notwithstanding, uncontrolled intuitions and insights remain operative even when they are not overtly expressed.

Seeking to better understand social movements is one reason for my admittedly belabored reconstruction of civil insurgencies in this book, but it is not my only one: I hope to glean useful lessons and insights for future generations' freedom struggles. In my view, without a fundamental break with a few hundred billionaires' control of humanity's vast social wealth and the allocation of that wealth through the profit motive, our planet will continue to be ravaged by reckless industrialization and unending wars. Without systematic transformation of

corporate capitalism, hundreds of millions of people will remain condemned to live in hell on earth because of poverty, starvation, and disease. As I see it, it is entirely unlikely that the kind of social reorganization required for lasting peace, environmental salvation, and shared prosperity can be achieved through continuing evolution of inherited economic and political structures. Rather, global revolutionary change is a prescriptive remedy needed in large doses to cure the diseases of militarized nation-states, power-hungry politicians, and wealth-grabbing billionaires.

Like art, revolution is an important dimension of uniquely human activity, a form of species-constitutive behavior that contains its own grammar and logic. While it is true that humans are creatures of habit and routine, we are also capable of enormous changes. We grow accustomed to our daily lives, and fantasize—or fear—that our current conditions will last forever. Nation-states today are everywhere hegemonic, yet uprisings can transform overnight even the most apparently entrenched social relationships.

One of the problems with a nationalist construction of history is that it refutes in advance the idea that human beings in various places might actually be more closely tied to each other than they are to their own "countrymen," that ordinary people's aspirations and dreams, their conscious and unconscious desires and needs, might be more similar to each other's than to those of their nations' elites. Even addition of one country's history to another can lead to assertions that are both untrue and unimportant, while obscuring transnational simultaneity, commonalities, and parallel grassroots developments. It matters little whether or not the first nationalist revolution in Asia took place in the Philippines with the uprising against the Spanish in 1896.[4] Korea's Great Farmers' War, or Tonghak movement, came two years earlier. What is important is they both fought for freedom from foreign conquest. The great international synthesis achieved by Tonghak, China's Taiping Rebellion, and Vietnam's Cao Dai have much more in common than many scholars realize precisely because of nationalist constraints on research.

Today, as planetary integration accelerates, human beings are rapidly becoming self-conscious as a species—one of the very best dimensions of globalization. World history opens new possibilities, and it is also a necessary means to assimilate properly the recent past. If citizens in country A were motivated to overthrow their ruler because they witnessed people in country B do so, then a history of either country alone would not do justice to its freedom movement. Even more significant is the *simultaneous* emergence of freedom struggles in many places. When conceptualized across national boundaries, a more accurate representation of uprisings becomes possible, and a more promising future comes into focus. This endeavor lies at the center of all my books on urban insurgencies in the late twentieth century.

The inability of analysts to comprehend the global nature of social movements is due in part to a lack of empirical studies of uprisings, even in national contexts. With respect to Korea, the best English-language historians have often neglected (and sometimes misstated) basic facts related to insurgencies and

paid scant attention to their significance, emphasizing instead "Great Men" and "Great Women." In the case of Thailand, as Somchai Phatharathananunth wrote in 2006, "There are still few major works on Thai civil society organizations in the form of social movements."[5] Much as I tried, I could find no comprehensive German or English-language history of many of the uprisings discussed in this book, so I wrote them myself.

Moving from periphery to center of the world system (a phenomenon commonly understood in economic terms), East Asia is positioned today to take the lead in the unfolding of world politics. The huge losses of indigenous people's lives in U.S. wars—more than three million killed in the Korean War and at least two million more in Indochina—served as crucibles of fire, precipitated refugees by the tens of millions, and conditioned unprecedented social movements that sought to transform their societies. In three devastating years, Korea's *yangban* aristocracy was decimated and the country completely destroyed, compelling its citizens arduously to rebuild.

Koreans' spirit and energy through destruction and reconstruction positioned them in the center of the groundswell of Asian popular uprisings, and their subsequent cultural wave (*hallyu*) swept the continent at the end of the twentieth century. In 1960, South Korean students led the country against U.S.-imposed dictator Syngman Rhee. After police slaughtered 186 young people in the streets of Seoul, Rhee was forced into exile, and democracy won. In 1973, Thai students mobilized hundreds of thousands of citizens against their military dictator, and after seventy-three were gunned down, they also won a short-lived democracy. In 1980, citizens in Gwangju courageously rose up against the brutality of the South Korean army. After driving the military out of the city, they governed themselves through citizens' general assemblies. Although overwhelmed by the army (abetted by U.S. President Carter) at the cost of hundreds of lives, they continued their struggle to overthrow the junta in 1987 and to imprison former dictators Chun Doo-hwan and Roh Tae-woo a decade later.

Asia's People Power Insurgencies

Even in defeat, popular insurgencies transform people and subsequently reappear in unexpected forms. The sudden emergence of eight People Power uprisings within six short years from 1986 to 1992 is a case in point. The term "People Power" was born in the actions of hundreds of thousands of Filipinos in February 1986, when citizens overthrew the Marcos dictatorship in an eighteen-day uprising. Set off by electoral fraud and a mutiny by key elements of the military, people stubbornly took to the streets to block loyalist tanks and troops. Despite being continually threatened with great harm, people's courageous flooding of public space provided critical support to the mutineers. While mythologized today, people's nonviolent resistance should not obscure the critical roles played by armed soldiers, whose guns and helicopters were vital to the ouster of Marcos. Nor should the grassroots rebellion obscure the importance of the Catholic Church hierarchy, which called for citizens to go into the streets of Manila.[6] After the uprising began, U.S. President Ronald Reagan continued to support his longtime friend Marcos,

but once the bulk of the military defected to the side of the opposition, the United States insisted the time had come for Marcos to go. Soon thereafter he went reluctantly into exile, but not before the phrase "People Power" became well known enough to frighten entrenched dictators no matter where in the world they ruled.

The overthrow of Marcos helped to animate the 1987 June Uprising in South Korea, a marathon endeavor of nineteen consecutive days of illegal protests in which more than one million people mobilized on three separate days. Hundreds of thousands of Koreans evidently were inspired and instructed by their Filipina fellows. Alongside Korea's legendary student movement, Christian groups also played a leading role in winning direct presidential elections and other political reforms. Civil society played a crucial role in the popular uprising through formation of a "grand coalition with the opposition political party, ultimately pressuring the authoritarian regime to yield to the 'popular upsurge' from below."[7]

As South Koreans won democracy, people's movements sprang up in many neighboring countries. An end to thirty-eight years of martial law was won in Taiwan in 1987, less than a month after the Korean military capitulated to opposition demands. Anecdotal evidence tells of people singing Korean democracy movement songs in the streets of Taipei.[8] Three more years of struggles culminated in students taking over Chiang Kai-shek Square in March 1990 to insist upon—and gain—democratic elections for president and parliament (the Legislative Yuan).

In Burma, popular aspirations for loosening central controls bloodily collided with the forces of order beginning in March 1988.[9] As in 1980 in Gwangju, students in Rangoon led the population into the streets, and the military went on a killing spree ordered by ruthless generals at the highest levels of power. Despite horrific repression, popular resistance continued, compelling President Ne Win to step down after twenty-six years of rule. When he named the police commander responsible for the butchery of so many innocent lives as his replacement, five days of new student-led protests forced yet another resignation. In the resulting vacuum of power, popular councils of workers, writers, monks, ethnic minorities, and students emerged as the leadership of a nationwide movement for multiparty democracy. Undeterred by people's clear desire for more freedom, the military decided to preserve its rule by massacring even more protesters—killing at least three thousand people before order was restored. Arresting thousands in 1990, including over a hundred newly elected parliamentarians, the Burmese military government ignored the huge electoral mandate won by Aung San Suu Kyi's National League for Democracy (NLD) and kept her under house arrest for most of the next twenty years.

In March 1989, three decades after their failed uprising against Chinese invasion, Tibetans rose again. When Chinese police attacked small protests against Han settler-colonialism, demonstrators counterattacked, turning their wrath on Chinese businesses. Party leaders sent in the army and declared martial law in Lhasa on March 8, a precursor of what would come to Beijing less than two months later. In May 1989—months before Eastern European communism faced its stiffest challenges—student activists in Tiananmen Square activated a broad public outcry for democracy. Hundreds of thousands of workers and citizens

soon joined the movement as it spread to nearly all cities and grew beyond anyone's expectations. Following the tactics of Filipinos who had mobilized to stop Marcos's army in Manila, citizens of Beijing held off the People's Liberation Army for days and prevented it from implementing the government's declaration of martial law. Despite splits in the armed forces and inside the Communist Party, order was ultimately imposed after hundreds were killed around Tiananmen Square. For years afterward, activists were hunted and imprisoned.

The revolt in China originated from outside the ranks of the party, but it had significant allies even in the party's highest echelons. Within the halls of communism in neighboring Vietnam, as the *Zeitgeist* of revolt against dictatorship was at work, a member of the Politburo, General Tran Do, publicly called for multiparty democracy in 1989, an unprecedented event. Inspired by Asian revolts, Europeans began to take more decisive actions to overthrow Soviet-backed dictatorships. There, too, dissidents within ruling communist parties significantly affected activists. A flood of change inundated Eastern Europe, and new governments were won in Hungary, Poland, Czechoslovakia, and Romania. In November 1989, the Berlin Wall came down, and Germany quickly reunified. The Baltic countries seceded from the Soviet Union, which toppled under its own top-heavy weight and soon dissolved into more than a dozen new republics.

In 1990, people in Bangladesh and Nepal massively mobilized to overthrow their rulers. Only after students in Bangladesh compelled warring opposition parties to unite against military dictator Muhammad Ershad was the movement able to compel his resignation. In Nepal, fifty-three days of illegal protests beginning in April 1990 forced the king to accept opposition leaders' generous offer of a constitutional monarchy. (In 2006, after a new king seized control, a nineteen-day popular uprising abolished the monarchy.)

As country after country was affected, Thailand underwent a bloody uprising in 1992 that strengthened democratic forces. The mobilization there began humbly enough when an opposition politician went on a hunger strike against coup leader General Suchinda Kraprayoon's ascension to the office of prime minister. As a movement for civilian control of government and democracy spread, hundreds of thousands of people went into the streets. On May 18, 1992, more than fifty people were killed when the military used bullets to suppress street demonstrations. As a result of his army's brutality, Suchinda was forced to step down.[10] Years of grassroots involvement in writing a new constitution produced one of the best in Asia, which went into effect in 1997.

In 1998 in Indonesia, students called for a "People Power Revolution." After days of campus protests, tens of thousands of them surged into the parliament building and ended three decades of Suharto's presidency. Protesters used new Internet technology—chat rooms, web pages, and e-mail—to organize and mobilize. Given the country's unreliable progovernment media, they adapted the web to publicize their movement and used encrypted messages to send intelligence reports to each other about the positions and size of military and police. Since student organizations were heavily infiltrated, one of their main organizations, Forum Kota, insisted on a rotation of leadership and office location every week.[11]

The variety of movements examined in this book is summarized in TABLE 1.2.

Despite libraries of books written about them, these uprisings' synchronous appearance and relationships to each other have yet to be explored. As the

TABLE 1.2 **Asian People Power Uprisings, 1986–1998**

Country	Year	Type of Movement	Short-Term Result	Long-Term Outcome
Philippines	1986	Military mutiny supported by Catholic hierarchy and People Power	Elite-led democracy; neoliberal reforms	"People Power II" in 2001 overthrows President Estrada; death squads still active as late as 2008
South Korea	1987	People's Uprising; 19 days of illegal protests	Direct presidential elections; increased liberties; strike wave	End to military dictatorship; increased liberties and prosperity; Korean wave
Taiwan	1987–1990	Extraparliamentary opposition (*tangwai*); student protests	End of four decades of martial law; wave of protests; elections	Illiberal democracy; increased prosperity
Burma	1988	Student-led popular uprising; councils	Two dictators overthrown; movement suppressed violently—thousands killed	Continuing military dictatorship
Tibet	1989	Monk-led protests turn into riots	Martial law; heavy repression	Continuing military dictatorship
China	1989	Student protests leading to popular contestation of power	Repression; increased prosperity	Continuing one-party rule but with greater prosperity
Nepal	1990	53-day popular uprising and general strike	Constitutional monarchy; strikes; reforms	Second Uprising in 2006 overthrew monarchy
Bangladesh	1990	Student-led popular uprising	Overthrew Ershad; new elections; strikes	Continuing dictatorship/ illiberal democracy
Thailand	1992	Citizen coalition led protests; intense fighting after military attacks	Violent suppression leading to new constitution (1997)	2006 military coup d'état; continuing struggles; polarization of Red and Yellow Shirts
Indonesia	1998	Student-led uprising; occupation of parliament	Ouster of Suharto; neoliberal reforms	Illiberal democracy

relationship of these revolts to each other is an understudied dimension of their history, so is their place in an even larger intercontinental wave of insurgencies beginning with the global 1968 New Left.

Belief that the 1960s belong to the distant past ignores their continuation at the end of the twentieth century. While New Left insurgencies were characterized by the rapid spread of revolutionary aspirations and actions in 1968, they had significant long-term effects. The shift in values they created meant that it was only a matter of time before the apartheid regime in South Africa collapsed, only a question of when—not if—dictatorships everywhere would be swept away. Forms of direct democracy and collective action developed by the New Left of the 1960s continue to define insurgencies' aspirations and structures, precisely why the New Left was a world-historical movement.[12]

Civil Insurgencies from 1968 to 1998

In almost every country in the world, insurgent social movements synchronously emerged in 1968. From France to Senegal, China to the United States, and Poland to Mexico—as in dozens of other countries—militant students were at the cutting edge, and they sometimes detonated wider social explosions. In France, after a student rebellion, a general strike in May 1968 of at least nine million workers demanded an end to lives of drudgery in factories and offices. When the communist-dominated trade unions negotiated a settlement calling for higher wages, thousands of workers threw bottles and lunches at their union leaders, and booed them off the stage. Around the country, workers rejected the communists' proposed settlement. They wanted new kinds of lives—not better pay for enduring stultifying assembly lines and boring offices for the better part of their lives. They rejected the entire system and called for self-management and an end to capital's domination.

Opposing capitalism and communism because neither kind of society was free, 1960s movements became known as "New Left" to distinguish them from their communist—or "Old Left"—predecessors (or, as some insisted, nemeses). When the Prague Spring, the Czechoslovakian experiment of "socialism with a human face," was brought to an end by half a million invading Russian troops, people in Prague took down street signs and buildings' identification markers. It took the Soviet Union's army a week to find the post office. Borrowing a page from the U.S. peace movement, young protesters put flowers in the gun barrels of tanks. In Poland and Yugoslavia, student movements emerged along the global fault lines of protest.

The international revolt in 1968 was touched off by one of the greatest armed uprisings of the twentieth century—the Tet Offensive in Vietnam. On the night of January 31, 1968, nearly every city in the Southern part of the country and all U.S. bases came under surprise attack. More than half a million U.S. troops and a vast intelligence apparatus failed to anticipate the nationally synchronized uprising during which seventy thousand South Vietnamese guerrillas attacked in a single night. Vietnam's second-largest city, Hue, was liberated and held out for three weeks, and the U.S. embassy grounds in Saigon were overrun.[13] Planned

to coincide with presidential elections in the United States, the Tet Offensive resulted in President Lyndon Johnson's decision not to run for reelection and led to upheavals in Germany, France, Spain, Senegal, and Mexico—even in the heartland of the United States. A few months later, on April 4, Martin Luther King Jr. was assassinated, and riots took place in over 150 cities. More damage was done to Washington, D.C., than when the British captured it during the war of 1812. All these movements converged in a process of mutual amplification.[14]

The spontaneous chain reaction of uprisings and the massive occupation of public space in 1968 signaled the sudden entry into history of millions of ordinary people who acted in solidarity with each other. People intuitively believed that they could change the direction of the world from war to peace, from racism to solidarity, and from patriotism to humanism. In my book on the global imagination of 1968, I developed the concept of the eros effect to explain the rapid spread of revolutionary aspirations and actions.[15] During moments of the eros effect, universal interests become generalized at the same time as dominant values of society (national chauvinism, hierarchy, and domination) are negated. As Marcuse so clearly formulated it, humans have an instinctual need for freedom—something that we grasp intuitively, and it is this instinctual need that is sublimated into a collective phenomenon during moments of the eros effect.[16] Dimensions of the eros effect include: the sudden and synchronous emergence of hundreds of thousands of people occupying public space; the simultaneous appearance of revolts in many places; the intuitive identification of hundreds of thousands of people with each other; their common belief in new values; and suspension of normal daily routines like competitive business practices, criminal behavior, and acquisitiveness. In the course of this book, I discuss many such moments. People's intuition and self-organization—not the dictates of any party—are key to the emergence of such protests. Actualized in the actions of millions of people in 1968, the eros effect is a tool of enormous future potential. In relation to the 1980 Gwangju Uprising, this phenomenon was named the "absolute community."[17] With the Arab Spring in 2011, transnational eruptions of protests have become widely visible.

Although often thought to have climaxed in 1968, the global movement intensified afterward. In 1969, the Italian Hot Autumn saw hundreds of thousands of workers challenge factory authority and institute autonomous forms of shop floor governance. In 1970, the U.S. movement reached its high point at the Black Panthers Revolutionary People's Constitutional Convention, the culmination of the "American 1968," a remarkable five-month upsurge from May to September 1970, during which the movement simultaneously climaxed among a wide range of constituencies: a political strike of four million students and half a million faculty on the campuses after the killings at Kent State and Jackson State Universities; the National Organization for Women's general strike of women (and the design of the modern symbol for feminism); the massive entry of Vietnam veterans into the peace movement; the first Gay Pride week; and the Chicano Moratorium on August 29 in Los Angeles. As the whole society was disquieted, Puerto Ricans, Native Americans, and a rainbow of constituencies flocked to

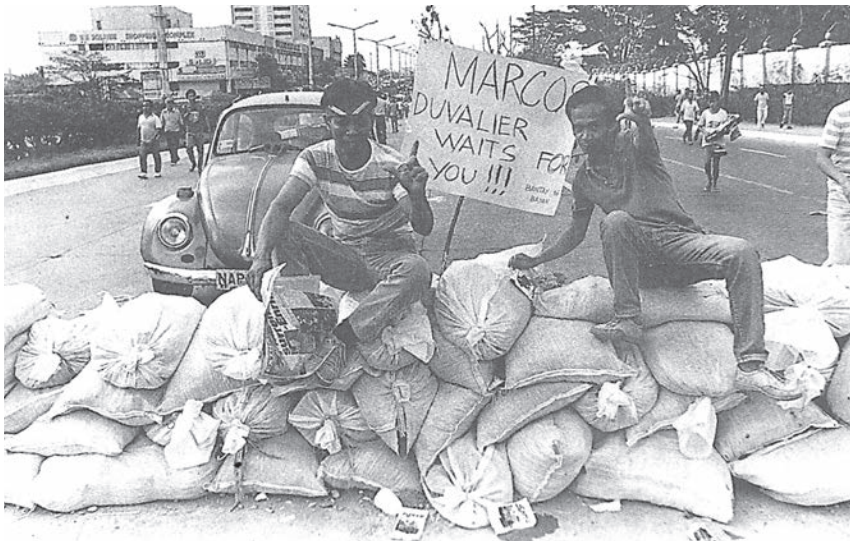
Philadelphia in answer to the Black Panther Party's call to write a new constitution for the United States. A visionary draft was produced through a participatory process involving more than ten thousand people. The consensus included replacement of the nation's standing army with popular self-defense and equitable redistribution of the world's wealth.[18]

Also in 1970, the Polish workers' movement revived. Chanting "We apologize for 1968!"—when workers had failed to rally to students' support—thousands went into the streets of Gdansk. Fighting with police escalated, and at least 45 people were killed, hundreds wounded, and 19 buildings set on fire—including the ruling United Polish Workers' Party headquarters. The movement spread to Gdynia and Szczecin. Only after Party Chief Edward Gierek resigned could the insurgency be contained.[19] Fighting in the streets subsided, but the trade union movement slowly rebuilt itself into *Solidarność*—the organization that went on to overturn Poland's government in 1989.[20]

At the end of 1972, when the U.S. government bombed the dikes of Northern Vietnam and mined Haiphong harbor, campus protests again involved millions of students. In October 1973, Thai students mobilized, led by some who had studied in the United States and returned with New Left ideas. After dozens of people were shot down in the streets of Bangkok, students overthrew the Thanom military dictatorship and created one of the most open periods in the country's history.

A month later, students in Greece took over Athens Polytechnic to oppose the U.S.-imposed Papadopoulos dictatorship. They chanted slogans that praised the courage of their counterparts in Thailand. The 1973 Greek student movement's mammoth "OXI!" ("NO!") poster drew inspiration from what Herbert Marcuse had characterized as the New Left's "Great Refusal." On November 17, soldiers using a tank, bazooka, and automatic weapons gunned down thirty-four people and retook the Polytechnic. Eight days after the slaughter, Papadopoulos was overthrown from within his own army's ranks, but the military's days in power were numbered, and it fell within a year.

From 1974 to 1991, after the floodgates of change had been knocked open by this global revolt, some forty countries democratized. Beginning with the overthrow of the Portuguese dictatorship on April 25, 1974, the "Carnation Revolution" was quickly followed by the demise of the junta in Spain (1977). In Peru, strikes and popular insurgencies toppled the government in 1977. In dozens of countries, people fought the structural adjustment demands of the International Monetary Fund (IMF). From 1978 to 1979, widespread strikes against the IMF broke out in Bolivia. Popular movements in Nicaragua and Iran overthrew U.S. imposed dictators. History's *Zeitgeist* suddenly appeared everywhere, if not in the form of popular uprisings and movements in the streets, then in the backrooms of power. Everyone rushed to catch the wave: Senegal (1978), Ghana (1979), Nigeria (1979), Bolivia and Honduras (1982), and Turkey (1983). In 1982, a general strike in Argentina mobilized people against the military dictatorship for the first challenge to it in years. In Uruguay, monthly rallies beginning in May 1983 culminated in a mammoth protest of four hundred thousand people (in a country of only three



Popular intuition in the Philippines dictated Marcos's departure.
Photo by Joe Galvez Jr. Source: Monina Allarey Mercado, editor, *People Power: An Eyewitness History* (Manila: The James B. Reuter, S.J. Foundation, 1986), 145.

million) demanding release of political prisoners and an end to dictatorship. In 1984, millions of Brazilians mobilized for direct presidential elections.

As a popular uprising developed step by step, Haiti's dictator, Duvalier, in power for decades, was forced to flee early in February 1986. In the Philippines, people took hope from Duvalier's ouster and mobilized massively against Marcos later that same month. In the photo above, one group sat on their sandbagged barricade with a homemade sign reading: "Marcos—Duvalier Waits for You!!!" Such global relationships are often ignored or deemed anecdotal, yet people's intuitive connections are powerful resources in challenging existing powers.

Global People Power

As People Power swept through Asia after 1986, citizens rose up all over the world—from Eastern Europe to Latin America, back again to Asia and into Africa. Civilian governments replaced military rulers in Colombia, Brazil, and Chile; multiparty democracy appeared in the Ivory Coast, Zaire, Gabon, and Algeria. In December 1987, Palestinians under Israeli occupation launched their first Intifada. Even in Pakistan, democratic elections were held after Zia-ul-Haq was killed in an air crash on August 17, 1988. In January 1989, Benin's Marxist-Leninist government faced a paralyzing general strike and was subsequently forced to conduct free elections. At the end of February 1989, Venezuelans rose in a tremendous popular rebellion against an IMF-imposed austerity package. At least 276 people were killed (some counted the slaughter in the thousands) before the massive mobilization could be halted. Over the next decade, the country realigned its political priorities, and Hugo Chávez was swept into power. As South Africa's movement continued to build momentum, millions of people worldwide

galvanized an antiapartheid boycott, and Nelson Mandela walked out of prison on February 11, 1990, after thirty-seven years in captivity.

This wave of insurgencies was not characterized by armed insurrections led by centralized parties or ideologically united groups. Neither pacifist nor communist, these movements were generated from the grassroots. Generally not armed, they were neither called into being nor led by trained cadre (such as the Proletarian Hundreds or Red Guards); nor were they mainly productions of traditionally defined sectors of the working class. In contrast to political insurgencies led by centralized parties, these were social insurgencies produced by global civil society, a diverse and autonomous manifestation of popular wisdom that has continually grown since 1968. The movements' popularity and festive character often befuddled those in power. During the June Uprising in South Korea, even the military's loyalties were so thrown into confusion that top generals thought military intervention would not be helpful and might provoke another Gwangju Uprising.[21]

Within the veritable tidal waves of protests that swept the planet, people intuitively awakened to their power and took control of cities. In the Philippines, Romania, and East Germany, crowds of people overran presidential palaces. The 1986 "People Power" uprising in the Philippines clearly encouraged South Koreans (whose 1980 Gwangju Uprising had also inspired Philippine resistance), and "People Power" became the name adopted for mobilizations in Burma, Taiwan, and China. The overthrow of Romanian dictator Ceausescu had profound effects in Nepal, since Ceausescu had visited Kathmandu in 1987. In 1998, Indonesians took the name "People Power" from the Philippines, and Jakarta's reform movement bequeathed its name ("*reformasi*") to the Malaysian movement soon thereafter.[22] In victory as well as defeat, people intuitively identified with one another: after Chinese protesters were brutalized in the streets of Beijing on June 4, 1989, East German activists worried they would soon face a "Chinese solution."

In 1968, connections among protests were, for the most part, immediate and unreflective, but in 1989, citizens became self-consciously tied together. As a result of mass communications, people are increasingly capable of interpreting world events and drawing appropriate lessons within days of events in distant parts of the planet. From my earlier study of the actions of millions of people in 1968, I gleaned five defining principles of the global New Left:

1. Opposition to racial, political, and patriarchal domination as well as to economic exploitation
2. Concept of freedom as not only freedom from material deprivation but also freedom to become new kinds of human beings
3. Expansion of democracy and the rights of the individual, not their constraint
4. Enlarged base of revolution, including the "proletarianized" middle strata
5. Emphasis on direct action.[23]

These principles existed in the actions of millions of people and embodied their capacity for self-management and international solidarity.

Uprisings at the end of the twentieth century demonstrate patterns astonishingly similar to these defining features of New Left movements. Unlike hostility toward the church in classical Left movements from the French Revolution and 1871 Paris Commune to the Russian and Chinese Revolutions, New Left movements emerged from within the church and used it as a base of support, whether in African-American civil rights struggles or East Germany's Protestant church refuges. Movements of the 1960s involved thousands of pastors like Martin Luther King Jr. and a changed Catholic Church after the promulgation of liberation theology in Medellín. During Gwangju's 1980 uprising, the YMCA and YWCA were key organizing centers, and in 1986, Cardinal Jaime Sin of Manila played a huge role in the 1986 Philippine People Power victory, as did Korean Protestants and Cardinal Stephen Kim in the following year's June Uprising.

A key New Left characteristic was an enlarged constituency of revolution—a factor discerned in the significant participation of the lumpenproletariat among Gwangju's armed resistance fighters; mobilization of the new working class (office and clerical employees) as Seoul's "necktie brigade" in 1987; in committed protests of Nepalese medical professionals, lawyers, and journalists in 1990; and in what is erroneously referred to as the "mobile phone mob" in Thailand in 1992.[24] While more recent movements assimilated completely new technologies like fax machines, cell phones, the Internet, and social media, they also reactivated New Left playfulness, humor, irony, and autonomous artistic expression as opposition tactics.

New Left forms of participatory democracy were central to the movement's identity in the 1955 struggle to desegregate buses in Montgomery, Alabama; student movements in dozens of countries; the international counterculture embracing Christiania's communards in Copenhagen, San Francisco's Diggers, Amsterdam's Provos, and Berkeley's People's Park; as well as the Black Panther Party's Revolutionary People's Constitutional Convention. Continuing in the 1960s tradition of participatory democracy, the autonomous movement (or Autonomen) in Germany used consensus in general assemblies to make key decisions and has sustained itself over several generations of activists. Allied with farmers and ecologists, the Autonomen successfully stopped the German nuclear power industry's attempt to produce bomb-grade uranium. As they developed through militant actions, the Autonomen transformed themselves from civil Luddism into a force resisting the corporate system as a whole.

Asian uprisings contained parallel forms of "deliberative democracy" during the 1980 Gwangju Uprising in South Korea, the Lily student movement in Taipei's Chiang Kai-shek Square in 1990, and Kathmandu's liberated Patan in 1990. In this same tradition, Seattle protests against the WTO in 1999 were largely prepared by networks for direct action based upon strict principles of participatory democracy. In the anti–corporate globalization movement that grew by leaps and bounds after Seattle, forms of consensual decision-making emerged among many groups, and decentralization of communication made possible by projects

like Indymedia allowed for the participatory ethic to proliferate. Even the armed Zapatista uprising in Mexico shares many New Left characteristics. Not a traditional working-class constituency, they bring questions of participatory democracy and everyday life to the center of the movement. They did not try to seize state power directly but sought to change their lives through counterinstitutions. They even talked about the idea of creating a "new person." All of these developments are extraordinarily important and help to highlight and intensify a globally interconnected movement.

Asian activists were greatly influenced by—and should be seen as part of—the New Left. Thailand's 1973 uprising was to a large extent organized by students whose studies in the United States had exposed them to 1960s ideas and actions. The 1973 generation not only led that uprising but also went on to participate significantly in the 1992 democratic insurgency. The Philippines movement was also a product of energy from the 1960s. During years of preparation for their historic task, members of the Reform the Armed Forces Movement (RAM)—the central organization of the 1986 military mutiny—studied Egyptian officers who overthrew King Farouk in 1952, reviewed the history of social movements in many countries, "in particular Gandhi's work and people's experiences in Czechoslovakia and Hungary," and contacted civil activists to organize "flower brigades" designed to block roads into Manila and thereby prevent troops loyal to Marcos from coming to his rescue.[25] They modeled these flower brigades on "those the American youth movement of 1968 had used to disarm troops breaking up demonstrations against the Vietnam War."[26] In 2009, I interviewed Philippine Senator Gregorio Honasan, a key leader of the mutiny in 1986. He described RAM as "children of First Quarter Storm," the Philippine movement of 1970.[27]

In her 1986 presidential campaign against Marcos, Cory Aquino ran under the banner of LABAN (*Lakas ng Bayan*) or "Power of the People"—an amazingly similar phrase to the chief slogan of the Black Panther Party, "All Power to the People." Today that exact phrase is used in many contexts, for example in Venezuela where it has been painted on police cars. While the phrase's exact origin lies in the flux of popular creativity that congeals in social movements, its common usage speaks volumes about these movements' similarities to each other.[28] One analyst reported that East German participants in their democratic revolution of 1989 were familiar with "People Power" but did not trace it to the Philippines. Similarly, activists in Nepal used the term without reference to the Philippines.[29]

Tracing the empirical history of Eastern European insurgencies, it is apparent that Asia's predated and inspired them. Asian uprisings were understood by participants in Europe's 1989 revolutions as vital, even "central to the global movement."[30] One participant in East Europe's democratization noted that television news reports of the Chinese movement played a significant role: "Everywhere in East Europe people were talking about it. Everybody told me: 'without the Chinese, we could not have done anything.'"[31] Televised reports of Chinese repression of protesters in Tiananmen Square also apparently played an important part in persuading Eastern Europe's Soviet leaders to go peacefully into the

sunset (with the sole exception of Ceausescu in Romania). The Chinese movement followed forerunners in the Philippines and Korea—both of which were within the U.S. sphere of power and therefore heavily reported in China. When Czech President Havel visited Manila in 1995, he spoke out about the inspirational role played by Filipina People Power for the Czech movement.[32]

Beginning with the global insurgency of the 1960s, people collectively recognized that they neither needed nor desired a single vanguard party. The history of the Russian Revolution and the dearth of liberty in Eastern Europe became commonsense proof of that strategy's limitations—as did the similarity between mammoth states in the United States and the USSR, a common realization reflected even in Beatles songs. Disenchantment with the corporate/communist behemoth grew as people came to understand that liberty without racial and economic equality (as in the United States) was not genuine freedom any more than equality without liberty (as in the USSR). All over the world, more and more people knew that war should be made obsolete, nuclear weapons abolished, and police repression ended. The New Left emphasis on spontaneity grew precisely from the wisdom and intelligence of ordinary people.

The global movement of 1968 profoundly changed people's expectations of their political leaders and economic structures. More than anything else, however, what changed were people's conceptions of themselves and their own power. Unlike the Euro-American New Left, activists in Asia did not need to invent a new counterculture in order to sustain their struggle. Rather, Asian movements rejuvenated traditional music, art, philosophy, and theater, and strengthened their communal ties as they mobilized against decrepit political relationships and postcolonial structures of capital accumulation.

From 1968 to 1989: The Fall of Soviet Communism

After 1968, grassroots movements continue to be structured according to a grammar of increasing democracy, autonomy, and solidarity. These now seemingly universal desires stand in stark opposition to the entrenched system of capitalist patriarchy. With these unifying aspirations, social movements remain globally connected, and internationally synchronized actions are increasingly common. From this perspective, late twentieth-century democratization movements were delayed results of 1968's high points. They were the 1960s' gift to the future. Without anyone predicting their downfall, Eastern Europe's communist regimes in Hungary, Poland, East Germany, Czechoslovakia, Bulgaria, Yugoslavia, and Romania were all transformed in 1989. The Soviet Union could not remain aloof and it soon dissolved. Looking back at the string of uprisings that swept away East Asian dictatorships and East European Soviet regimes, Immanuel Wallerstein, Terrence Hopkins, and Giovanni Arrighi called the movements of 1989 "the continuation of 1968."[33]

Among many historical connections and robust similarities between insurgencies in 1968 and 1989, New Left insurgencies that opposed communist Old Left governments in Czechoslovakia, Poland, and Yugoslavia in 1968 were direct links. In Czechoslovakia, when the new government first convened on December

28, 1989, delegates chose Alexander Dubček, leader of the 1968 Prague Spring, as their first speaker of parliament. Within the Soviet Union, many prominent Party intellectuals, especially those grouped around the journal *Problems of Peace and Socialism*, were greatly affected by the Czech movement. Soviet leader Mikhail Gorbachev himself acknowledged his debt to the Prague Spring as he rose in the ranks of the Communist Party: "The Czechoslovakia of 1968 was for me a major impulse toward critical thinking. I understood that there was something in our country that was not right. But this impulse came from the outside world."[34] Gorbachev's college friend from Moscow State University, Zdeněk Mlynář, was a future Czech dissident and one of the architects of the 1968 reform program. After the Prague Spring was crushed, Gorbachev was part of the Soviet delegation sent to reconstruct the two countries' relationship. He noted how workers refused to meet with the Soviet representatives, an "eye-opening" experience for him. Nineteen years later, when he was asked what the differences were between 1968 in Czechoslovakia and his own program, he quipped, "Nineteen years."[35]

Not only was Gorbachev directly changed and inspired by the Prague Spring, Czech activists remained committed to the process of social transformation and carried it through as best they could. We can trace a direct line of key activists who kept alive the dream of the Prague Spring and helped spread it to many other countries, including Hungary, the USSR, Bulgaria, Romania, and Poland, as illustrated in Figure 1.1.[36]

An additional dimension of the impact of 1968 is located in Western European peace movements, which grew out of the New Left and helped transform frozen Cold War power relations, that is, to navigate their societies out of the dead end to which political elites had so ineptly steered them. Without the European peace movement in the streets protesting U.S. Pershing missiles (and Soviet SS-20s), Gorbachev and other members of the Soviet establishment would never have been prepared to loosen their grip on Eastern European buffer states—their insurance against a new German invasion. After massive protests against the possibility of nuclear war erupted on both sides of what was then called the Iron Curtain, neither buffer states nor short-range missiles were required to provide Soviet leaders with the assurances they needed. Millions of people who took to the streets in Europe in the fall of 1981 against U.S. policies helped to convince Gorbachev that Western military intervention in Russia was out of the question. These mobilizations are historically responsible for breaking up the stalemated military confrontation produced by the world's political elites.

Grassroots movements against Russian domination, of course, have a long history. By the 1980s, they had grown into forces nagging Gorbachev and Soviet leaders, but after Asian uprisings brought People Power onto the stage of history, movements in Eastern Europe gained encouragement and inspiration. For example, on August 23, 1987, less than two months after Korean dictator Chun Doo-hwan was forced to agree to presidential elections, the Lithuanian Freedom League brought out several hundred people to protest the anniversary of the 1939 Molotov-Ribbentrop Pact—the first time public opposition to it had ever been mounted. The pact had sealed the Baltic countries' fate as Moscow's

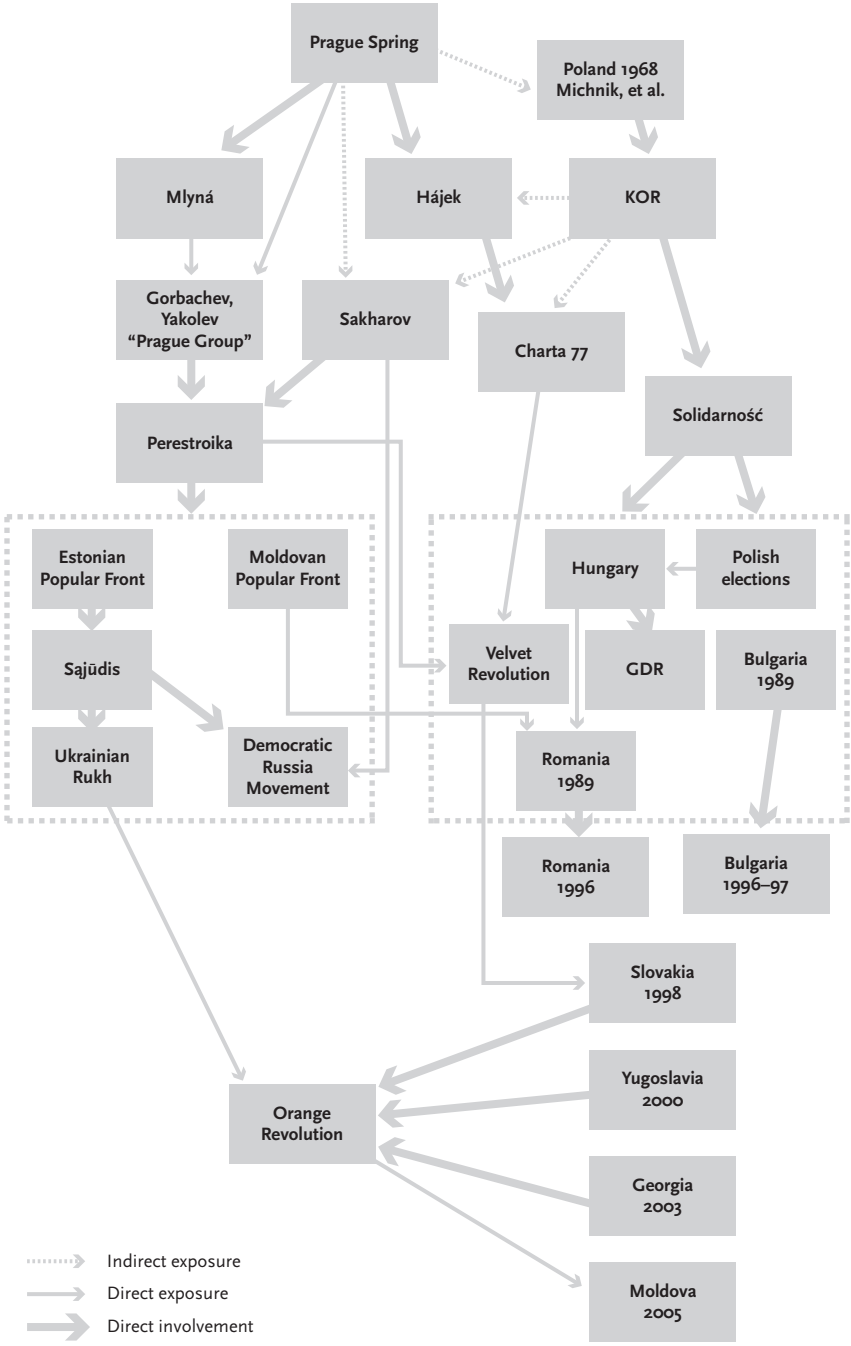


FIGURE 1.1 **Orange Tree, 1968–2006.**
Source: Fredo Arias-King, "Orange People: A Brief History of Transnational Liberation Networks in East Central Europe," *Demokratizatsia* 15, no. 1 (January 2007): 35.

satellites. On June 10, 1988, thousands of Lithuanians publicly sang forbidden nationalist songs, sparking a movement later dubbed the "Singing Revolution." Within two weeks, on June 24, intellectuals organized *sajudis* ("co-movements" in Lithuanian) to publicly lead an independence struggle against Soviet domination. *Sajudis* were comprised of artists, scholars, journalists, musicians, philosophers, and writers, and these intellectuals were as surprised as anyone when within a few months, they found tens of thousands of supporters.[37] On August 23, more than a hundred thousand people demonstrated for national independence. Merging with the Green Movement, the movement brought tens of thousands of citizens to join hands and form human chains along the Baltic shoreline, protesting the Ignalina nuclear plant and the possibility of catastrophic pollution. Activists revived folk songs and festivals, and by using their traditional culture, they activated massive resistance. On September 11, neighboring Estonians' "Song of Estonia" attracted about three hundred thousand people, more than one-fourth of the country's population.

Following these protests, on December 7, 1988, Mikhail Gorbachev told the UN General Assembly that "force and the threat of force can no longer be, and should not be instruments of foreign policy." Once Gorbachev renounced Soviet use of force to maintain its defense line against another German invasion, a wave of change engulfed Eastern Europe. Soon thereafter, tens of thousands of Soviet troops began pulling out of Eastern Europe. One of the most visible protest venues was in Leipzig, where beginning in the spring of 1989, people chanted, "*Wir wollen raus!*" (We want out!). Few people expected that before the end of the year, the Berlin Wall would be pulled down.

In June 1989, Imre Nagy—executed hero of the 1956 Hungarian Uprising in which as many as twenty thousand people died—was reburied in a symbolic act indicating the regime's desire to move toward independence from the Soviet Union.[38] In late August, on the fiftieth anniversary of the Molotov-Ribbentrop Pact, some two million people from Estonia, Latvia, and Lithuania joined hands in a six-hundred-kilometer human chain from Tallinn through to Vilnius and called for freedom from Russian domination. When Hungary opened its borders to the West on September 11, 1989, East Germans flooded through, and their leaders did not repress growing Monday marches in Leipzig. On October 16, one hundred thousand people marched, the next week three hundred thousand, until finally on Monday, November 4, half a million people gathered in Berlin with live television coverage. On November 9, the wall was breached.

History changed at breathtaking speed in this moment. One day after the Berlin Wall was broken through, Bulgarian dictator Tudor Zhivkov was forced from power. One month and a day later, the Velvet Revolution won power in Czechoslovakia. The demise of East Germany had helped stiffen resistance since the East German secret police had long been one of the most powerful forces propping up the Czech regime. The Velvet Revolution involved six weeks of spontaneous protests. On November 17, after it was rumored Prague police killed a student, about fifteen thousand people rallied near the university at Strahov.[39] As people came down the hill to the main part of the city, soldiers in red berets broke up their

peaceful candlelight vigil. In support of the ensuing student strike, actors turned over their theater for public meetings. With Havel as leader, Civic Forum—the name given to the political movement—called for liberal democracy and a market economy. Three days later, a crowd of more than a hundred thousand jammed Wenceslas Square. Jingling keys and calling for the return to power of Dubček, hero of the 1968 Prague Spring, they insisted it was time for the communists to vacate the house of government. The next day, even more people congregated, this time with a sound system. On November 27, the student strike turned into a two-hour national strike, convincing communist president Gustav Husak to step down, and the next month, the Federal Assembly unanimously acclaimed Havel as new president.

The same day that Czech President Husak resigned, December 10, the student-based Mongolian Democratic Union formed after sparking protests in Ulan Bator.[40] In a large public square, the rock band *Khonkh* ("bell") played outdoors as people paraded with banners protesting "bureaucratic oppression." A week later, a second rally drew two thousand people, and students returned with banners calling for freedom of the press, a multiparty system, and human rights. On January 21, with temperatures sliding to about –30°C, they sang traditional folk songs praising long-banned national hero Genghis Khan and resolved to hold weekly demonstrations. Beginning a hunger strike on March 7, traditionally dressed activists in Ulan Bator (inspired by Chinese students in Tiananmen) drew tens of thousands of supporters and set off strikes in the capital. As protests mushroomed, the government quickly granted a multiparty system. In mid-April, a postreform surge among coal miners and truck drivers demanded greater economic rights.

Despite the tectonic shift in Eastern Europe elites, ruthless dictator Nicolae Ceausescu had no intention of stepping aside. A week after Czech President Husak resigned, Romania's city of Timisoara convulsed in violence when soldiers opened fire and killed nearly one hundred people. During a general strike in Timisoara in response to the killings, soldiers began conversations with citizens. Within a week, the army withdrew, and a revolutionary committee became the town's de facto government.[41] On December 22, after the army suddenly changed sides, its tanks led a crowd in Bucharest that overran Ceausescu's headquarters and captured him. On Christmas Day, he and his wife were executed, and a new communist government quickly replaced them.

As the process of change continued, on March 11, 1990, Lithuania declared independence. That same day in Estonia, a democratically elected alternative parliament convened in the capital and also moved toward a declaration of independence. Despite Lithuania's resolution to depart from the Soviet Union, Russian troops retained control of much of the country's infrastructure. On January 13, 1991, they clamped down so hard that the day remains etched in people's minds as "Bloody Sunday." At least 14 people were killed (including a KGB officer) and 702 wounded when tanks and armor-piercing bullets were used to secure Soviet control of the main television tower in Vilnius.[42] People massively revolted, taking down street signs to confuse Russian troops (as had been done

in Prague in 1968), and offered active resistance to defend the parliament building and television tower.

Less than a week later in neighboring Latvia, six protesters were killed, and half a million people converged in downtown Riga. They built barricades to defend their parliament and broadcast centers, reinforced them with heavy trucks and tractors, strung barbed wire and flammable materials into the blockades, and organized round-the-clock patrols. Citizens provided meals, firewood, medicines, and prepared for a Soviet siege.[43] When the dust settled on the scurry of grassroots activity, no invasion by Russia materialized.

Within a few short months, Eastern Europe's Soviet regimes had been overthrown. In Hungary and Poland, governments adopted reform-oriented measures and integrated their oppositions into power through a process of institutional compromise. In Czechoslovakia and East Germany, regimes that refused to bend in the wind were swept from power by popular insurgencies. In Albania, Bulgaria, and Romania, after the top rung of communist leaders had been deposed, entrenched communist cadre retained control of capital and political power.

With its empire collapsing, hardline Soviet leaders sought to retake their power. Gorbachev's ambitious reform program so angered Party conservatives that they mounted a coup against him beginning on August 19, 1991. Elements of the Communist Party, the KGB, and the army mobilized in synchronized actions. Gorbachev and his family were placed under house arrest, but popular resistance to the hardline communist counteroffensive was widespread. In Moscow, people poured into the streets to protect the Russian parliament. Women and students called on soldiers to join them. Religious people knelt in the streets in prayer, pacifists passed out writings on the methods of nonviolent struggle, and newspapers and radio stations that had been closed by the state quickly set up alternative media. In Palace Square in Leningrad, more than a hundred thousand people assembled. The mayor appealed to the military not to support the coup, and the head of the Russian Orthodox Church threatened excommunication to anyone who followed coup leaders' directives. Russian President Boris Yeltsin dramatically called for resistance from the top of a friendly tank, and even some members of the KGB refused to follow orders, risking death for their defiance. Eventually the coup collapsed, opening the way for the dissolution of the Soviet Union. One by one, each of its fifteen republics declared independence. In early December, Yeltsin and leaders of other republics dissolved the USSR—a move later described as an "unconstitutional coup" by Gorbachev. Weakened by the August coup, Gorbachev was powerless to stop the USSR's collapse after seven decades of Communist Party rule.

In this time of accelerated change, former U.S. ambassador to NATO, Harlan Cleveland, observed that, "Across the world, the general public is now the driving force for political and social change, with their 'leaders' struggling to keep up with them. It is hard to think of a time in world history when the political leaders of powerful nations have seemed so irrelevant to important outcomes. Well-known names—presidents and prime ministers of the world's military powers and economic powerhouses—have been staring at the nightly

news with ill-concealed astonishment."[44] While acknowledging grassroots movements' power, top leaders in Eastern Europe also played significant roles. In many cities of Eastern Europe, including Leipzig, Berlin, Budapest, and Prague, crowds chanted "Gorby! Gorby!" They wanted a leader to liberate them, a new Peter the Great who would institute progress from the highest level of government. Despite elite attempts to manage the reform process, when the breakthrough came, its results were different than anyone expected. West Germany swallowed the East in one big gulp, producing enormous budgetary nightmares and cultural dislocations like the emergence of neo-Nazi pogroms. The demise of the USSR was beyond Soviet reformers' expectations or desires. No one could impede the rapid penetration of the former Soviet Union by corporate capitalism, and Russia was ravaged by a neoliberal offensive led by Harvard economists. Long-term movements, intense uprisings, grassroots insurgencies, and activist groups are key to producing robust, lasting democratic change. Yet, because key catalysts behind changes in the communist world emanated from above, democratization was neither lasting nor deep, and a new elite seized control and aligned itself with global capital.

With the collapse of the Soviet Union, American triumphalists proclaimed victory in the Cold War and prepared for another century of U.S. world hegemony. According to the misguided views of Francis Fukuyama, we had arrived at the "end of history." Although he subsequently recanted, many people believed that the entire world would welcome U.S.-style representative democracy as the best possible form of government. Paul Wolfowitz and Dick Cheney sent U.S. troops into Iraq, fully expecting them to be greeted with flowers in the streets of Baghdad. With mounting U.S. casualties, a continuing economic crisis that began in 2008, and the rising fortune of China, the illusion of U.S. global hegemony vanished as quickly as a desert mirage. In 2009, President Obama's bow to the emperor of Japan and his quiescence in Beijing were only surface indications of a much deeper American decline yet to come. Nonetheless, an ideological interpretation of the late twentieth century that maintains the United States is at the center remains operative in Samuel Huntington's concept of the third wave.

Rethinking Huntington's Third Wave

Few theorists besides Samuel Huntington have enjoyed the widespread application of their ideas through national policies. With the ears of Pentagon insiders and their worldwide academic network listening carefully to his every word, the power of his ideas should not be underestimated. A lifelong "Cold Warrior," Huntington praised the military as a "motor of development" even in repressive, Third World dictatorships supported by the United States. After the collapse of the Soviet Union, "Mad Dog" (as his students called him) warned of a "clash of civilizations," thereby laying the groundwork for U.S. global military intervention to focus on the Islamic world. Under President Richard Nixon, the United States implemented "forced-draft urbanization" in Vietnam through massive bombings of "free-fire zones" in which U.S. troops were permitted to kill anything that moved. For every minute Nixon was president, the United States dispensed

more than a ton of explosives on Vietnam—a total of 3.2 million tons, more than during the Eisenhower, Kennedy, and Johnson regimes combined.[45] As Carl Boggs recounted, "By the end of this warfare the United States had destroyed 9,000 out of 15,000 hamlets, 25 million acres of farmland, 12 million acres of forest, and 1.5 million farm animals. Towns and villages were bombed, torched, and bulldozed, their inhabitants often rounded up and slaughtered. Nearly one million orphans were left along with 181,000 disabled people and one million widows. More than 19 million gallons of toxic herbicides were dumped in the South alone, by far the greatest use of chemical weaponry ever."[46]

Despite the sacrifice of more than fifty-eight thousand American lives and slaughter of two million people, Huntington's attempt to "democratize" Southern Vietnam was shattered by the heroic resistance of Vietnamese freedom fighters and a global peace movement. Shaken by U.S. defeat in Vietnam, Huntington wrote a report to the Trilateral Commission in which he named the "democratic distemper" as a cause of 1960s protests. He concluded that less democracy was called for in the United States.[47] At that time, many people worried about the health of liberty, of its capacity to survive assaults by jaundiced paragons of virtue from Harvard, such as Samuel Huntington and Henry Kissinger.[48]

In 1984, Huntington incorrectly surmised that, "The likelihood of democratic development in Eastern Europe is virtually nil. . . . With a few exceptions, the limits of democratic development in the world may well have been reached."[49] He was not alone in his mistaken assessment. In a multivolume study of democratization published in 1989—just before the wave of collapse of Soviet regimes—Juan Linz, Seymour Martin Lipset, and Larry Diamond (leading lights of mainstream democratization theory) did not include a single communist country because "there is little prospect among them of a transition to democracy."[50] These predictive failures cannot be blamed on a lack of information. U.S. media continually gave wide coverage to communism's internal problems while scarcely covering events within the U.S. sphere of influence. By comparison to the U.S. media frenzy during Tiananmen Square protests in China, the tiny space afforded the 1980 Gwangju Uprising helps explain why it is today called "Korea's Tiananmen" even though it preceded the Chinese movement by nine years.

As dictatorships fell one after another in East Asia and Eastern Europe, Huntington quickly abandoned his pessimism and promulgated the idea of a "third wave" of democratization. Previously, his ideological presuppositions caused him to disregard the profound transvaluation of values ushered in by the movements of the 1960s. In the aftermath of the civil rights movement and New Left, South Africa's apartheid regime's days were numbered, as were the reigns of other dictatorships supported by the United States (and Huntington) in places like Greece, Portugal, Spain, the Philippines, and many other countries. Whether behind the communist "Iron Curtain" or in the capitalist "Free World," tyrannical governments could not last after the global wave of 1968 had changed the world. When unpopular regimes were subsequently swept aside, Huntington crafted the "third wave" as a tool to sever democratization movements from their origins in the New Left—and to aggrandize the U.S. role in the "democratic wave."

What Is Democracy?

Few political questions confronting humanity today are of greater importance than that of the meaning of democracy. Universally valued, democracy remains an elusive concept. Minimally defined as elections, democracy worthy of the name involves the existence of justice as well as citizens' input into significant decisions affecting their everyday lives. Despite such considerations, Huntington maintained that "elections, open, free, and fair, are the essence of democracy, the inescapable *sine qua non*."[51] In so doing, he ascribes a universal truthfulness to Western-style representative governments, to "formal democracy," in which members of the economic elite vie for positions of political power in elections, and only a fraction of the population bothers to vote.

In U.S. national elections, candidates not loyal to the Pentagon and transnational corporate power routinely cannot even be included in televised debates—let alone be able to mount major fund-raising efforts. As a result, the vast majority of U.S. elections carry less choice than between Coke and Pepsi. Voting seldom, if ever, offers meaningful choices to citizens, such as the possibility to abstain from wars. Whether Democrats or Republicans are in office, corporate looting of the public treasury and massive Pentagon budgets feed the war machine's unending appetite. Voting every few years may help people feel like they have a say in government, but it does little to ensure real democracy.

Even if we accept Huntington's perspective for the moment, major problems arise. His notion of democracy simply as voting makes for ease of measurement. Whether or not there are elections becomes his method to determine whether or not "democracy" exists—which, for him, means simply that 50 percent of adult males are eligible to vote and a "responsible executive" is supported by an elected legislature or chosen in direct elections.[52] Contemporary thinkers might wonder why 50 percent of men alone were sufficient for Huntington, why he excluded women. With rates of voter participation hovering around 60 percent, elections by men only would mean only about 30 percent of citizens would vote. A candidate could then be elected with a "majority" of 16 percent of citizens—hardly a number worthy of being considered democratic. Even if the franchise is extended to everyone, a majority of the 60 percent who vote is still only 30 percent of the electorate.

In contrast to Huntington's minimalist definition of democracy, a different understanding has repeatedly been formulated within popular movements since the 1960s: ordinary citizens should have real power through direct participation in decision-making. Popular input could help bring an end to wars and a phasing out of the military's weapons of mass destruction. Precious resources could be democratically allocated rather than controlled by a handful of billionaires. (Instead of a Murdoch-controlled global media, for example, we could have citizen-reporters providing news from around the world.) Self-managed institutions could determine society's goals and means of operation based upon human needs, not corporate greed. Democratization could be "measured on the basis of the decentralization of power and wealth and creation of an independent 'public sphere' in which rational discussion among people can take place and decision-making [can be] pursued."[53] A democracy worthy of the name would empower

all individuals to participate in deliberating upon political matters and to decide what policies to undertake. This kind of deliberative democracy is prefigured within the practice of popular insurgencies, but it is out of the realm of possibilities offered to us by the prevailing system of representative governments.

Existing forms of representative democracy are ideally suited to the corporate market economy. Candidates can compete like products through advertisements, and voting on personalities rather than on substantive issues involves the same kind of choice that consumers make in supermarkets. Parliamentary democracy is a suitable vehicle for legitimization of rule by economic elites, for expansion of corporate and consumer markets, for coordination of the global capitalist economy, and for providing banks with a safe and reliable financial infrastructure, but it is not the alpha and omega of democracy. The more Huntington's notion of "democratization" is accepted, the more real the risk becomes to freedom. He considered "democracy" good only when it did not interfere with U.S. strategic needs or business interests. In Allende's Chile, Chávez's Venezuela, or when Americans protest wars, he believed democracy should be limited, even overthrown if necessary. Huntington's notion of the "third wave" was a tool designed to open markets and bring deeper penetration by U.S. transnational corporations.

Following Huntington, a veritable parade of political scientists proclaimed that the essence of democracy is voting. In so doing, they prepared the groundwork for illiberal democracies like Pervaz Musharraf in Pakistan and Hamid Karzai in Afghanistan, petty dictators maintained in power only through wasting thousands of American lives, hundreds of thousands of indigenous people's lives, and hundreds of billions of U.S. taxpayer dollars—all legitimated by elaborate ideological obfuscation and media campaigns that portray them as necessary for "democracy." The type of "democratization" that Huntington's theories sought to impose on the world includes Abu Ghraib and the CIA's rendition program, unending wars in which the vast majority of those killed are civilians, environmental devastation, and trade liberalization that spells death to millions at the periphery of the world system—policies implemented without any substantive popular discussions or choice between real alternatives.

In order to provide ideological justification for U.S. wars, Huntington went to great lengths to rewrite history. In *The Third Wave* (1991), he argued that democracies have been created in three great waves: the first wave, 1828 to 1926; the second wave, 1943 to 1962 (post–World War II); and the third wave, 1974 to the time of the book's publication in 1991. Consistent with his bias against grassroots power, his periodization of the "first wave" severed democracy from the American and French Revolutions—social movements that created modern representative democracy—just as his "third wave" cut democracy from its roots in 1960s insurgencies. While he excluded 1960s social movement insurgencies, he did not exclude economic developments prior to 1974: "In considerable measure, the wave of democratizations that began in 1974 was the product of the economic growth of the previous two decades."[54] Huntington's three waves correspond to victories of capitalist elites and as such relate more to expansion of market economies than to genuine democracy. He did not ignore political developments—only

those of which he did not approve—and when he did acknowledge the contribution of activism, it was elite action. He was convinced that "the third wave of the 1970s and 1980s was overwhelmingly a Catholic wave."[55] He located the origin of this Catholic wave in the change in the Catholic Church during the 1960s due to Pope John XXIII—but he did not link it to 1960s movements that were the point of origin of the "Christian Left" at the base of the church. His bias against 1960s movements prevented him from understanding that tens of thousands of people in the Christian Left, advocates of the Theology of Liberation, were not simply subjects of the Pope but active creators of changes in the church and themselves autonomous participants in the global grassroots movement.[56]

Huntington framed his third wave as a tribute to U.S. imperial power and democratic prestige: "Movements for democracy throughout the world were inspired and borrowed from the American example. In Rangoon supporters of democracy carried the American flag; in Johannesburg they reprinted *The Federalist*; in Prague they sang 'We Shall Overcome'; in Warsaw they read Lincoln and quoted Jefferson; in Beijing they erected the Goddess of Democracy."[57] Here Huntington made a critical error that led him to misconstrue events. He claimed the "Goddess of Democracy" in Tiananmen Square was a copy of the U.S. Statue of Liberty. In fact, Chinese art students explicitly rejected the idea of copying the U.S. statue as too "pro-American" and instead modeled theirs on Russian communist Vera Mukhina's monumental sculpture, "A Worker and a Collective Farm Woman," which held aloft a torch with two hands on the top of the USSR's pavilion at the 1937 Paris World Fair.[58]

Similarly, the Athens Polytechnic students who sacrificed their lives in the movement to overthrow the Greek dictatorship were profoundly anti-American. As was well known to Greeks, the United States and Israel had overthrown their democracy in 1967 and imposed the Papadopoulos junta in its place.[59] With an accurate understanding of the actual character of the global insurgency unleashed in this period, we can better comprehend Athens Polytechnic students, whose actions were a key event in the process of overturning dictatorships in the Southern Mediterranean. The global student movement of 1968, which mightily opposed the U.S. war in Vietnam, animated Greek students.[60] Athenian protesters in 1973 identified with Thai students, who also opposed the U.S. war and had overthrown their military rulers only a few months earlier. Huntington ignored Greek and Thai students and instead placed Portugal's military coup against the Salazar dictatorship at the beginning of the third wave. Even in that case, he failed to link the Portuguese colonels to insurgent African guerrillas in Mozambique, Angola, and Guinea-Bissau, key grassroots movements that greatly influenced Portugal's colonial officers before they successfully overthrew Salazar in 1974.

To be sure, the democratic luster of the United States remained bright in the 1980s. During the Gwangju Uprising, the most militant fighters nicknamed themselves the "SWAT" team after a popular U.S. television show, and many citizens believed that the entry of U.S. aircraft carrier Coral Sea into Korean waters during the uprising meant it had come to save them—when in fact the opposite was true. After the United States abetted Korea's military dictatorship in crushing the

uprising, anti-Americanism emerged with a vengeance in South Korea. The dialectical character of the United States, one of the freest societies in world history and simultaneously one of its most warlike, evidently still allowed for a variety of enthusiastic support in the 1980s. For Huntington, the United States "conveyed an image of strength and success."[61] For others, the image was of a free society, where ordinary citizens could live prosperously and enjoy liberties like nowhere else.

Huntington's exogamous model of political development understood democracy as a system that could be imposed upon people from the outside, as in his post–World War II "second wave," when "Allied occupation promoted inauguration of democratic institutions in West Germany, Italy, Austria, Japan, Korea."[62] Leaving aside the slaughter of a hundred thousand South Koreans prior to the beginning of the Korean War, the question remains: was Korea then a democracy? When we ask which "open, free, and fair" elections (according to his own definition) in Korea he could have meant, there is none to which anyone can point. Admiring more recent democracies imposed from the outside, Huntington welcomed U.S. invasions of Grenada and Panama as bringing them democracy.[63] It quite eluded him that any system of government imposed from the outside hardly qualifies as democracy—unless of course, something other than "rule by the people" is meant. In a world where Henry Kissinger, who bombed Hanoi on Christmas 1972, and Barack Obama, who expanded the war in Afghanistan, both received a Nobel Peace Prize, it should be no wonder that mainstream scholarly research is also flawed—yet I cannot help but make note of it.

Ideology and Science

In the late 1980s, the U.S. National Academy of Sciences twice refused to admit Huntington on the grounds that his work was "ideology," not "science." In his campaign against Huntington's application for membership, Yale mathematics professor Serge Lang pointed to the book *Political Order in Changing Societies* (1968), in which Huntington called South Africa under apartheid a "satisfied society." Huntington's ideological posturing is far from unique. Much of mainstream political science in the United States routinely accepts value-laden research as "science." Huntington's Cambridge colleague, MIT professor Ithiel de Sola Pool, kept interrogation records of tortured Viet Cong suspects in file cabinets in his office as "data" to analyze enemy motivation, implicitly becoming part of the entire torture apparatus. Despite his complicity in war crimes in Vietnam—or should I say because of them?—Pool's name today is attached to an annual award of the American Political Science Association. Like Pool, Huntington did not see himself merely as an academic but infused his books with advice for and praise of the military as a "motor of development."

For "dispassionate" and "value-free" political scientists like Huntington, elite dynamics are primary variables. Since they assume an elite will always govern, the only questions become: "Which elite?" and "Can democratic transitions be managed for the maintenance of elements of an old elite?" Huntington's administrative social research categorized the character of transitional regimes, classifying them as transplacement in which key leaders maintain themselves

within a new arrangement of power, unlike a wholesale *replacement* of an old elite, or a *transformation* of an old elite into a new elite. *Abolition* of elite rule altogether and creation of substantive democracy remained out of his realm of possibilities. As a self-described "aspiring democratic Machiavelli," Huntington offered "tips" to leaders on how to isolate radical opposition.[64]

Emphasizing elite actions, Huntington downplayed the role of civil society in the democratization groundswell at the end of the twentieth century. He claimed "demonstrations, protests and strikes played central roles in only six transitions completed or underway at the end of the 1980s [in the Philippines, South Korea, East Germany, Poland, Czechoslovakia, and Romania]."[65] Only reluctantly did he acknowledge that, "It seems probable, although little evidence is available, that events in the Philippines and Korea helped stimulate the demonstrations for democracy in Burma in 1988 and those in China in the fall of 1986 and the spring of 1989, as well as having some impact on the liberalization that occurred in Taiwan."[66] Like Huntington, Guillermo O'Donnell and Philippe Schmitter believe that it is preferable for elites to transfer power to some fraction of their supporters or to negotiate a transition with reform-minded members of the opposition than to be outright overthrown by opposition movements.[67] That is one reason why elites embrace and propagate widely nonviolence: it permits negotiations between old and new rulers and facilitates the peaceful accommodation of the old within the new. It is also why reformist parties can be so useful. Stephen Haggard and Robert Kaufman realized that "as we have seen in several of our cases, reforms have sometimes been more effective when they are implemented by 'Left' parties that can provide some possibility of political influence and compensation to those negatively affected by the reform process."[68] According to their view, popular movements cannot lead to more democracy; they may prove to be "uncontrollable" and lead either to revolutionary overthrow of the existing system in its entirety or increased repression.[69]

Whatever their different purviews, mainstream sociologists, economists, and political scientists subscribe to the notion of the "rational" individual actor at the core of society. As with Adam Smith's "invisible hand," they believe that "rational choice," or personal advancement of compartmentalized self-interests will lead to maximization of the social good. In the first place, individualized instrumental rationality is but one form of rational action—and often an unreasonable form at that. Collective instrumental rationality and value-rationality are other forms, which play central roles in animating social movements. With important exceptions like E.P. Thompson and George Rudé, social scientists have traditionally viewed crowds as less rational than individuals. In extreme interpretations, crowds were understood to embody a form of "contagion," of authoritarian domination and unintelligent action, such as lynch mobs. According to this conventional wisdom, crowds lead individuals to suspend their individual rationality and act according to "base" instinctual passions.

In contrast to this view, millions of ordinary people who unite in social movements can be regarded as proof of another dynamic: ordinary people, acting together in the best interests of society, embody a reasonability and intelligence

far greater than that of elites which rule nation-states and giant corporations. One does not need to be a radical to subscribe to the idea of group intelligence. Recent observers of technology have penned simple insights that speak volumes: the Internet and the World Wide Web have facilitated "the wisdom of crowds" and "smart mobs."[70]

In the case of South Korea, political scientists' bias in favor of elite-led transitions compelled the Carnegie Commission to ignore the contribution of the insurgent movement in the country's democratic transition. Instead they credited Roh Tae-woo (who was subsequently imprisoned for his crimes against the people of Gwangju).[71] Juan Linz and A. Stepan studied East Germany and came to the conclusion that "regime collapse" had occurred despite substantial evidence that popular mobilizations transformed the political landscape.[72] When fractions of previous dictatorships are permitted to play some role in new democratic regimes (as in South Korea, East Germany, Romania, and Indonesia), the reasonability, and even gullibility, of insurgent movements is a key reason, not their lack of influence. People's generosity even allowed many deposed dictators to keep much of their ill-begotten fortunes—as Duvalier, Marcos, Chun, Ershad, and Suharto all did.

Evaluating Uprisings

Uprisings are the best of times; they are the worst of times. Tremendous changes occur, but great setbacks are possible. People make new lifelong friends, others watch in horror as their loved ones are murdered and blood flows in the streets. Are the sacrifices worth the benefits?

For Huntington, as for most political scientists, the impacts of uprisings are mainly understood in terms of changes in elite power. That is certainly one analytical approach, yet there are far more significant outcomes. One is to assess broad indications of people's well-being and happiness, new rights won by subaltern groups, and expanded liberties. To what extent have onerous burdens and dictatorships been brought to an end? A second evaluative dimension was enunciated more than two hundred years ago, when Immanuel Kant searched for indications of the degree to which reason becomes an important determinant of morality and culture. If we extrapolate his insight into a framework of gauging freedom in people's lives, we can ask: Have people been able to become deliberative subjects of their social and political affairs? To what extent have liberties won by ordinary citizens resulted in free public conversations, increased ordinary citizens' involvement in policymaking, changed patterns of authority, and activated civic organizations? What kinds of resources for future freedom movements have been produced?

Bound as they are to maintaining the political control center, Huntington and mainstream political science fail to recognize such outcomes. As is often said, victors write history in large script. Yet at the margins, a more accurate understanding, one not tied to predominant ideology, is possible. Every revolutionary upheaval prepares the ground for future insurgencies. Although apparent failures since they did not seize power, previous waves of social movements

in 1848, 1905, and 1968 profoundly changed values and ushered in new political epochs.[73] After 1848, workers won greater employment rights, and citizens' voting rights expanded; after 1905, struggles for national liberation became increasingly legitimate; and since 1968, women's rights, justice for subaltern groups, and the environment have become central concerns. Similarly, subsequent Asian uprisings expanded freedom without seizing power. The transvaluation of values produced by robust insurgent movements may be longer-lasting and of greater significance than transitory fluctuations in elite composition or implementation of new voting systems. After successful insurgencies, Taiwan's forty-year martial law regime finally was brought to an end, and Thais, Nepalis, Filipinos, and South Koreans all won new, more progressive constitutions. In South Korea, workers won annual double-digit pay raises for years after 1987, and workers in Thailand, Nepal, South Korea, and China won greater union rights.

Yet uprisings can also lead to regression in people's standards of living, civil demobilization, and less political engagement in state matters. In the aftermath of successful overthrows of dictatorships in Thailand, South Korea, Indonesia, and the Philippines, elite corporations, aided by the World Bank, IMF, and WTO, used the openings provided by popular movements to batter down barriers to U.S. and Japanese goods and investors. The resultant situation led to increased poverty in the Philippines and to the 1997 IMF crisis in Thailand and South Korea. In Burma, dire poverty reigns supreme—along with a ruthless predatory state whose commanding generals enrich themselves while the vast majority suffers in marginalized states of existence. In the former Soviet Union, hunger rose and life expectancy fell. In 1989, only 2 percent of Russians lived below the poverty line. Within ten years of the coming of "democracy," half of all children lived in poverty, and more than 23 percent of Russians were impoverished—living on two dollars per day or less.[74] Fully 40 percent of Russians survived on four dollars per day, as tuberculosis and infant mortality rates rose to an all-time high. Within twenty years, average life expectancy for men fell by five years to sixty.

One common result of the nine case studies in this book is that in country after country, an afterglow surge occurred after uprisings. Insurgencies energized civil societies, outcomes evident in workers' strikes and farmers' movements, motion among minorities and subaltern strata, and a mushrooming of independent newspapers, cooperatives, and political activism. Clearly uprisings gave rise to expanding circles of actions. Insurgent confrontations transformed clients into citizens, compelled elites to reevaluate goals and adjust policies, and empowered grassroots organizations. After individuals and groups engaged in illegal regime-altering actions, they found ways to engage in new forms of political participation to remake established procedures and create new space for others to become involved. The world's greatest natural resources are human imagination and will—the forces animating, and empowered by, upheavals at the end of the twentieth century.

At the same time, some uprisings' afterglow outcomes, such as NGOs proliferation, lead to the emergence of a new stratum of professional activists who presented fertile grounds for recruitment by U.S. agencies seeking supplicants

concerned with the promotion of democracy—but not with challenging the global elite's power and wealth. As specialized activism came to dominate the movement, insurgencies simultaneously disintegrated, as even well-intentioned activists were co-opted into vehicles that served the very system they formerly opposed. In the 1980s, as People Power revolts transformed political dynamics, U.S. global strategy changed from sole reliance on repressive military interventions and covert CIA actions to include a public component called "democracy promotion," the attempt to penetrate and control emergent civil societies in targeted countries (those with regimes deemed unfriendly or unstable by American policymakers). Tens of millions of U.S. dollars were poured into programs formerly managed by the CIA, such as creating "friendly" trade unions, political parties, feminist alliances, activist clusters, and media that would support U.S. transnational interests.[75] In combination with the National Endowment for Democracy, the AFL-CIO, the international committees of the Democratic and Republican parties, and the U.S. Chamber of Commerce, NGOs chosen by U.S. officials were funded with the aim of building friendly voices within emergent civil societies in order to channel them into transnational alliances with global elites.[76]

Often this effort required undermining indigenous radical formations that organically developed through struggles against U.S.-backed dictatorships—as in the Philippines under Marcos or more recently in Egypt before the overthrow of Mubarak. The goal in both these cases was to suppress popular demands that arose from below. American policymakers are well aware that the radical impetus in the streets, if left to develop according to its own logic, could well continue to expand and become a threat to both U.S. strategic military interests and corporate domination. U.S. infiltration of indigenous civil society groups is often a preventative measure meant precisely to undermine movements' radical potential. As James Petras observed during the Arab Spring, "The risk of waiting too long, of sticking with the dictator, is that the uprising radicalizes: the ensuing change sweeps away both the regime *and* the state apparatus, turning a political uprising into a social revolution."[77] (In cases where entrenched regimes unfriendly to the United States cannot be overthrown through military intervention, such as Milošević in Yugoslavia, strategic nonviolent opposition led by NGOs was used as an alternative tactic.)[78]

As the global economy developed, authoritarian dictatorships became fetters to economic expansion or were unable to defeat local insurgencies. Previously friendly regimes were sacrificed one after another to make room for new subelites better equipped to facilitate new phases of capitalist expansion. Under the guise of overthrowing "cronyism," indigenous capitalists who operated according to the logic of local accumulation were replaced with transnational banks and corporations, eager to penetrate previously closed labor markets and consumers.

One after another, insurgencies at the end of the twentieth century illustrate that ordinary people's collective wisdom is far greater than that of entrenched elites, whether democratically elected or self-appointed. Without highly paid trainers, insurgent activists adapted new technologies and brought them into use faster than the corporate elite. The throngs of ordinary citizens who went into

the streets and faced violence and arrest, endangering their own lives and their families' futures, had visions of freedom writ large. It is these visions that I seek to portray in the following chapters, to uncover goals expressed during actions involving thousands of people. I aim to probe into people's deepest aspirations—ones that remain in their hearts even when the events in which they are involved are short-lived or produce unintended results. Empirical analysis of the actions of hundreds of thousands of ordinary people—millions if we sum the total number of participants—reveals that ordinary people want peace, greater democratic rights, equality, and simple forms of progress, while elites are more concerned with cutting taxes on the rich, extending national sovereignty, and protecting corporate profits. In the transformed reality constructed by People Power, mobilized throngs have newfound capacities to enact change. Inspired by previous movements of common people to overturn elites at the apex of power, popular movements continue to enlarge the scope of human liberty. By reconstructing the actions of hundreds of thousands of people in insurgencies, I hope to construct a philosophical history not simply from my own mind but from the actions of masses of people. As Susan Buck-Morss put it, what is needed is to "construct not a philosophy of history, but a philosophy out of history, or (this amounts to the same thing) to reconstruct historical material as philosophy."[79]

The Continuing Wave

The late twentieth-century wave of uprisings is inseparable from the ongoing contestation of elite rule that continues today in global insurgencies against the neoliberal economic system. The global movement that yesterday won formal democracy today demands an end to world poverty. By challenging the concentration of humanity's collective wealth in the hands of a few billionaires and a few hundred corporations, the global justice movement is a continuing democratic wave. Without anyone telling them to do so, millions of people all over the world have selected the world capitalist regime as the target of their protests. Most publicly visible in world media after the battle of Seattle in 1999, popular confrontations of elite power seek democratic deliberation of the global economic system's goals and rules. All over the world, thousands of protesters have challenged summit meetings of the IMF, G-8, WTO ministerials, and World Bank. A new pluralist and decentralized global economy is envisioned by thousands of participants in the World Social Forum in Porto Alegre and in regional alliances autonomous of the WTO/World Bank/IMF axis. How much longer will humanity tolerate the current abomination of waste and warfare that condemns millions of human beings to living hell on earth?

Despite apparent setbacks, social movements' energies resonate from the grassroots across national boundaries, stimulating each other with greater velocity and more force than ever before in history. Groups form and disband, crowds gather and scatter—but they leave behind a residue of collective capacity for thought and action that builds upon previous incarnations. As people are transformed through insurgencies, they refuse to tolerate previously accepted forms of domination. Popular wisdom grows in each iteration of the movement's

emergence; ever-new aspirations animate action. In the never-ending struggle for freedom, we continually advance part of the way to our goal but never arrive at the end of history.

NOTES

1 Two prominent examples are Adam Przeworski and Fernando Limongi, "Modernization: Theory and Facts," *World Politics* 49, no. 2 (January 1997), 155–83; and Fareed Zakaria, *The Future of Freedom: Illiberal Democracy at Home and Abroad* (New York: W.W. Norton and Co., 2003).

2 Liu Jianfei, "Chinese Democracy and Sino-U.S. Relations," Institute of International Strategic Studies, The Central Party School of the Chinese Communist Party, September 2007, 8.

3 Samuel Huntington, *The Third Wave: Democratization in the Late Twentieth Century* (Norman: University of Oklahoma Press, 1991), 307.

4 See Mark R. Thompson, *Democratic Revolutions: Asia and Eastern Europe* (London: Routledge, 2004), 131.

5 Somchai Phatharathananunth, *Civil Society and Democratization: Social Movements in Northeast Thailand* (Copenhagen: NIAS Press, 2006), ix.

6 See Monina Allarey Mercado, ed., *People Power: An Eyewitness History* (Manila: The James B. Reuter, S.J. Foundation, 1986), 226, 258, 308.

7 Sunhyuk Kim, "Civic Mobilization for Democratic Reform," in *Institutional Reform and Democratic Consolidation in Korea*, eds. Larry Diamond and Doh Chull Shin (Stanford: Hoover Institution Press, 1999), 281. For details on the June Uprising, see *Asia's Unknown Uprisings Volume 1*, chap. 9.

8 As explained to me by Seung Hee Jeon in Cambridge, Massachusetts, in 2006.

9 The military government changed the country's name to Myanmar and its largest city to Yangon, but the democracy movement insists on retaining the old names, and I follow them in that regard.

10 Human rights activists maintain that hundreds were killed or disappeared.

11 Jørgen Johansen, "Waves of Nonviolence and the New Revolutionary Movements," unpublished paper, 37; revised and published with the same title in *Seeds of New Hope: Pan-African Peace Studies for the Twenty-First Century* (2 vols.), eds. Elavie Ndura-Ouedraogo, Judith Atiri, and Matt Meyer (Trenton, NJ: Africa World Press, 2008).

12 For more on the world-historical character of the movements of 1968, see chapter 1 of my book *The Imagination of the New Left: A Global Analysis of 1968* (Boston: South End Press, 1987), hereafter *Imagination*.

13 The preeminent role of Vietnam was preconditioned by an earlier insurgency there during World War II. In 1945, after millions of Vietnamese had starved to death under Japanese rule, a nationwide uprising had captured the country's rice stocks and food supplies. In 1968, master planning by Ho Chi Minh, who had studied European and Chinese armed urban insurrections of the 1920s and 1930s for the Comintern, was a critical component of the synchronized Tet offensive. See A. Neuberg, *Armed Insurrection* (London: New Left Books, 1970). The authors were actually Mikhail Tukhachevsky, Ho Chi Minh, Osip Piatnitsky, and Erich Wollenberg.

14 See *Imagination*, chap. 2.

15 See *Imagination* and *The Subversion of Politics: European Autonomous Social Movements and the Decolonization of Everyday Life* (Oakland: AK Press, 2006) for discussion of what I call the "eros effect."

16 For Marcuse's formulation of instinct and revolution, see *Essay on Liberation* (Boston: Beacon Press, 1969).

17 Choi Jungwoon, *The Gwangju Uprising: The Pivotal Democratic Movement that Changed the History of Modern Korea* (Paramus: Homa and Sekey Books, 2006), 85, 131.
18 These documents and analysis are contained in *Liberation, Imagination, and the Black Panther Party*, eds. Kathleen Cleaver and George Katsiaficas (New York: Routledge, 1997).
19 For a brief overview of events in Poland as well as New Left insurgencies in Yugoslavia and Czechoslovakia, see *Imagination*, 58–70.
20 See "Poland," *Imagination*, 66–70. For continuity with even earlier development of the Polish movement, see Jane Leftwich Curry on "Poland's permanent revolution" in Jane Curry and L. Fajfer, *Poland's Permanent Revolution: People vs. Elites 1956 to the Present* (Washington, D.C.: American University Press, 1996).
21 Jung-Kwang Cho interviewed General Chun Doo-hwan in his private residence years later as a friendly interlocutor. He also met with other top members of the South Korean military elite and reported that the majority had opposed the use of force. See Jung-kwan Cho, "The Kwangju Uprising as a Vehicle of Democratization" in *Contentious Kwangju: The May 18 Uprising in Korea's Past and Present*, eds. Gi-Wook Shin and Kyung Moon Hwang (Lanham, Maryland: Rowman & Littlefield, 2003), 76–77.
22 Thompson, *Democratic Revolutions*, 3.
23 *Imagination*, 23–27.
24 For more on the Korean uprisings of 1987, see *Asia's Unknown Uprisings Volume 1*, chap. 9.
25 Almonte quoted in Angela Stuart Santiago, *1986: Chronicle of a Revolution* (Manila: Raintree Publishing, 1996), 49.
26 Jose T. Almonte, *My Part in the People Power Revolution* (Manila: n.p., 2006), 14.
27 See chap. 2 below.
28 Poder Popular is also the name of Cuban institutions of government established in the 1975 Constitution. Earlier, a slogan was widely chanted in Chile: "Crear, crear; Poder Popular!" In 2007, I was astonished to see "Todo el Poder al Pueblo!" on the sides of police cars in Caracas, Venezuela.
29 Thompson, *Democratic Revolutions*, 131.
30 Edward Friedman, ed., *The Politics of Democratization: Generalizing East Asian Experiences* (Boulder: Westview Press, 1994), 24.
31 Christopher Neck, *Actual* (April 1990); *World Journal* (April 6, 1990): 33. Quoted in Friedman, *Politics*, 54.
32 V.G. Kulkarni and R. Tasker, "Promises to Keep," *Far Eastern Economic Review* 159 (February 29, 1996): 22.
33 Giovanni Arrighi, Terence K. Hopkins, and Immanuel Wallerstein, "1989: The Continuation of 1968," *After the Fall: 1989 and the Future of Freedom*, ed. George Katsiaficas (New York: Routledge, 2001), 35.
34 Mikhail Gorbachev and Zdeněk Mlynář, *Conversations with Gorbachev: On Perestroika, the Prague Spring, and the Crossroads of Socialism* (New York: Columbia University Press, 2002), 47, as quoted in Fredo Arias-King, "Orange People: A Brief History of Transnational Liberation Networks in East Central Europe," *Demokratizatsia* 15, no. 1 (January 2007): 38.
35 Mark Almond, *Uprising! Political Upheavals that Have Shaped the World* (New York: Barnes and Noble Books, 2002), 98.
36 Arias-King, "Orange People," 31.
37 Grazina Miniotaite, *Nonviolent Resistance in Lithuania: A Story of Peaceful Liberation* (Boston: The Albert Einstein Institution, 2002), 26.
38 Johansen, "Waves of Nonviolence," 24.
39 For years, the rumor passed as truth, but it was recently determined that it was

purposely spread to help build the opposition. See Dan Bilefsky, "Velvet Revolution's Roots Still Obscure 20 Years Later," *New York Times*, November 17, 2009.

40 Peter Ackerman and Jack Duvall, *A Force More Powerful: A Century of Nonviolent Conflict* (Palgrave: New York, 2000), 439.

41 Ibid., 436.

42 Miniotaite, *Nonviolent Resistance*, 49; Johansen, "Waves of Nonviolence," 29; Richard Deats, "The Global Spread of Active Nonviolence," Fellowship of Reconciliation, http://www.forusa.org/nonviolence/0900_73deats.html.

43 Olgerts Eglitis, *Nonviolent Action in the Liberation of Latvia* (Boston: The Albert Einstein Institution, 1993), 32–33.

44 Harlan Cleveland, "The Age of People Power," *The Futurist* (January–February 1992): 15.

45 George Katsiaficas, ed. *Vietnam Documents: American and Vietnamese Views of the War* (Armonk, NY: M.E. Sharpe, 1992), 143.

46 Carl Boggs, *The Crimes of Empire* (London: Pluto Press, 2010), 55.

47 Michael Crozier, Samuel Huntington, and Joji Watanabe, *The Crisis of Democracy: Report on the Governability of Democracies to the Trilateral Commission* (New York University Press, 1975), 106, 113–15.

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50 Friedman, *Politics*, 33.

51 Huntington, *Third Wave*, 9.

52 Ibid., 16.

53 Peter Hering in *The Role of Civil Society and Democratization in Nepal*, ed. Ananda P. Srestha (Kathmandu: Nepal Foundation for Advanced Studies, 1998), i.

54 Huntington, *Third Wave*, 61.

55 Ibid., 76.

56 See *Imagination*, 71–73.

57 Huntington, *Third Wave*, 286.

58 Han Minzhu, ed., *Cries for Democracy: Writings and Speeches from the 1989 Chinese Democracy Movement* (Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1990), 343–44.

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61 Huntington, *Third Wave*, 287.

62 Ibid., 18.

63 Ibid., 40, 164.

64 Ibid., xv.

65 Ibid., 146.

66 Ibid., 103–4.

67 See Guillermo O'Donnell and Philippe Schmitter, eds. *Transitions from Authoritarian Rule: Tentative Conclusions about Uncertain Democracies* (Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1986).

68 Stephen Haggard and Robert Kaufman, *The Political Economy of Democratic Transitions* (Princeton: Princeton University Press, 1995), 377.

69 Guillermo O'Donnell and Philippe Schmitter, eds., *Transitions from Authoritarianism: Comparative Perspectives* (Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1986).

70 See the recent books by non-academic and non-movement observers James Silewecki, *The Wisdom of Crowds* (New York: Random House, 2005) and Howard Rheingold, *Smart Mobs: The Next Social Revolution* (Cambridge, MA: Perseus Publishers, 2003).
71 See *Asia's Unknown Uprisings Volume 1*.
72 Juan J. Linz and Alfred Stepan, *Democratic Transitions and Consolidation: Southern Europe, South America, and Post-Communist Europe* (Baltimore: Johns Hopkins University Press, 1996), 316–28.
73 *Imagination*, 13–18.
74 Joseph E. Stiglitz, *Globalization and Its Discontents* (New York: Norton, 2002), 153.
75 One of the first analyses of this phenomenon is in William I. Robinson, *Promoting Polyarchy: Globalization, U.S. Intervention, and Hegemony* (Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press, 1996).
76 Ibid., 95.
77 James Petras, *The Arab Revolt and the Imperialist Counterattack* (Atlanta: Clear Day Books, 2011), 16.
78 Compared with the enormous sacrifices required to bring communism to power, comparatively little effort was needed to overthrow it—a tribute to its capacity for peaceful evolution.
79 Susan Buck-Morss, *The Dialectics of Seeing: Walter Benjamin and the Arcades Project* (Cambridge: MIT Press, 1989), 77, 55.